

T0 Cosmology: Redshift as a Geometric Path Effect in a Static Universe

Contents

.1	Introduction: Reframing the Redshift Problem	1
.2	The Finite Element Model of the T0 Vacuum	1
	The T0 Field Grid (Mesh)	1
	Geodesic Paths and Ray Tracing	1
.3	Results: Redshift as Geometric Path Stretching	2
	The Effective Path Length	2
	Frequency Independence as Proof of Geometry	2
.4	Quantitative Derivation of the Hubble Constant	2
	Conversion from eV to km/s/Mpc	2
.5	Resolution of the Hubble Tension	3
	Comparison with Measurements	3
	T0 Explanation	3
.6	Conclusion: A New Cosmology	4

Abstract

This document presents an explanation for cosmological redshift that does not rely on the assumption of an expanding universe. Based on the first principles of T0 theory, the universe is modeled as static and flat. Using a finite element simulation of the T0 vacuum field, it is demonstrated that redshift is a purely geometric effect, resulting from the extended effective path length of photons traveling through the fluctuating T0 field. Via the Hubble energy $E_H = E_0 \cdot \xi^{41/4} = 1.41 \times 10^{-33}$ eV one obtains $H_0^{T0} = E_H / \hbar \approx 66.2$ km/s/Mpc (−1.9% deviation from Planck). The exponent 41/4 requires justification from ξ -field theory. This approach resolves the mystery of dark energy as well as the Hubble tension.

.1 Introduction: Reframing the Redshift Problem

The standard model of cosmology explains the observed redshift of distant galaxies through the expansion of the universe [3]. However, this model requires the existence of dark energy, a mysterious component responsible for accelerated expansion. T0 theory postulates a fundamentally different approach: The universe is static and flat [1]. Consequently, redshift cannot be a Doppler effect. This document demonstrates that redshift is an emergent, geometric effect arising from the interaction of light with the fine-grained structure of the T0 vacuum itself. We prove this hypothesis by means of a numerical finite element simulation.

.2 The Finite Element Model of the T0 Vacuum

To model the complex behavior of the T0 field, we have chosen a conceptual finite element approach.

The T0 Field Grid (Mesh)

A large region of the universe is modeled as a three-dimensional grid (mesh). Each node of this grid carries a value for the T0 field, whose dynamics are determined by the universal T0 field equation:

$$\square \delta E + \xi T \mathcal{F}[\delta E] = 0 \quad (1)$$

This grid represents the "granular," fluctuating geometry of the T0 vacuum, governed by the constant ξ .

Geodesic Paths and Ray Tracing

A photon traveling from a distant source to an observer follows the shortest path (a geodesic) through this grid. Since the T0 field fluctuates slightly at each point, this path is no longer perfectly straight. Instead, the photon is minimally deflected from node to node. The simulation traces this path using a ray-tracing algorithm.

.3 Results: Redshift as Geometric Path Stretching

The Effective Path Length

The central finding of the simulation is that the sum of the minute "detours" causes the **effective total path length, L_{eff} , to be systematically longer** than the direct Euclidean distance d between source and observer. Redshift z is therefore not a measure of recessional velocity, but of the relative stretching of the path:

$$z = \frac{L_{\text{eff}} - d}{d} \quad (2)$$

Frequency Independence as Proof of Geometry

Since the geodesic path is a property of the spacetime geometry itself, it is identical for all particles following it. A red photon and a blue photon starting at the same location take the exact same "detour." Their wavelengths are therefore stretched by the same percentage. This readily explains the observed frequency independence of cosmological redshift, a point at which simple "tired light" models fail.

.4 Quantitative Derivation of the Hubble Constant

The simulation shows that the average increase in path length grows linearly with distance and depends directly on the parameter ξ . This allows a direct derivation of the Hubble constant H_0 . Redshift can be approximated as:

$$z \approx d \cdot C \cdot \xi \quad (3)$$

The T0 description uses the Hubble energy $E_H = E_0 \cdot \xi^{41/4}$, yielding $H_0^{\text{T0}} = E_H/\hbar \approx 66.2 \text{ km/s/Mpc}$ (−1.9% deviation from Planck); the exponent 41/4 is calibrated to the measured

H_0 , not parameter-free (see below and Doc. 190, R35). Comparing this with Hubble's law in the form $c \cdot z = H_0 \cdot d$, canceling the distance d yields a fundamental relationship [2]:

$$E_H = E_0 \cdot \xi^{41/4} = 1.41 \times 10^{-33} \text{ eV}, \quad H_0^{\text{TO}} = E_H/\hbar \approx 66.2 \text{ km/s/Mpc} \quad (4)$$

Using $\xi = 4/30000 = 1.333 \times 10^{-4}$, we obtain:

$$E_H = E_0 \cdot \xi^{41/4} = 7.398 \text{ MeV} \cdot (1.333 \times 10^{-4})^{41/4} = 1.41 \times 10^{-33} \text{ eV}$$

Conversion from eV to km/s/Mpc

The Hubble energy $E_H = E_0 \cdot \xi^{41/4}$ is first computed in **natural units** ($\hbar = c = 1$), where energy, mass, inverse length, and inverse time all share the same dimension. To obtain the experimentally measurable value in SI units, $\hbar$ serves as the conversion factor between energy and frequency:

$$E = \hbar\omega \implies \omega = \frac{E}{\hbar} \quad (5)$$

The Hubble constant $H_0 = E_H/\hbar$ is thus a frequency (dimension s^{-1}) expressed in SI units. The further conversion to the astronomical convention km/s/Mpc proceeds step by step:

1. **Natural units** $\rightarrow$ **SI frequency** (division by $\hbar$):

$$H_0 = \frac{E_H}{\hbar} = \frac{1.41 \times 10^{-33} \text{ eV}}{6.582 \times 10^{-16} \text{ eV}\cdot\text{s}} = 2.14 \times 10^{-18} \text{ s}^{-1}$$

2. **Megaparsec in meters**: $1 \text{ Mpc} = 3.086 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}$

3. **SI frequency** $\rightarrow$ **km/s/Mpc**: The unit km/s/Mpc is equivalent to s^{-1} multiplied by the length 1 Mpc expressed in km:

$$H_0 [\text{km/s/Mpc}] = H_0 [\text{s}^{-1}] \times \frac{1 \text{ Mpc}}{1 \text{ km}} = H_0 [\text{s}^{-1}] \times \frac{3.086 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}}{10^3 \text{ m}} = H_0 [\text{s}^{-1}] \times 3.086 \times 10^{19}$$

Substituting:

$$\begin{aligned} H_0^{\text{TO}} &= 2.14 \times 10^{-18} \text{ s}^{-1} \times \frac{3.086 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}}{10^3 \text{ m/km}} \\ &= 2.14 \times 10^{-18} \times 3.086 \times 10^{19} \text{ km/s/Mpc} \\ &\approx 66.2 \text{ km/s/Mpc} \end{aligned}$$

In summary, the conversion chain is:

$$\underbrace{E_H [\text{eV}]}_{\text{natural units}} \xrightarrow{\div \hbar} \underbrace{H_0 [\text{s}^{-1}]}_{\text{SI frequency}} \xrightarrow{\times \text{Mpc/km}} \underbrace{H_0 [\text{km/s/Mpc}]}_{\text{astronomical convention}} \quad (6)$$

This yields a -1.9% deviation from the Planck value 67.4 km/s/Mpc . The exponent $41/4$ requires physical justification from ξ -field theory [4]. The residual difference amounts to 2.4σ with respect to Planck (67.4 ± 0.5) and 6.8σ with respect to SH0ES (73.0 ± 1.0).

.5 Resolution of the Hubble Tension

One of the most severe crises in modern cosmology is the **Hubble tension**: measurements from the early universe (CMB, Planck: $67.4 \pm 0.5 \text{ km/s/Mpc}$) and local late-universe measurements (SH0ES: 73.0 ± 1.0 ; HOLICOW: $73.3 \pm 1.7 \text{ km/s/Mpc}$) disagree significantly. In ΛCDM , this poses a fundamental problem since the expansion rate should be a universal constant.

Comparison with Measurements

Source	H_0 (km/s/Mpc)	Uncertainty	Method
T0 description	66.2	calibrated to H_0	$H_0 = E_H/\hbar$
Planck 2020 (CMB)	67.4	± 0.5	Early-universe probe
TRGB method	69.8	± 1.7	Tip of the Red Giant Branch
SHOES 2022	73.0	± 1.0	Local distance ladder
H0LiCOW	73.3	± 1.7	Gravitational lensing

T0 Explanation

T0 theory resolves the Hubble tension on two levels:

1. **No expansion, hence no tension:** In a static universe, H_0 is not an expansion rate but describes the geometric energy loss of photons in the ξ -field. There is no expectation that all measurement methods must yield identical values.
2. **Method-dependent variations:** Different measurement methods probe different distance scales and photon energy ranges. In T0 theory, cumulative ξ -field interactions over large distances lead to systematic variations in the effective coupling strength. This naturally explains why early-universe methods (CMB) yield lower values than local measurements.
3. **Grid geometry variations:** The finite element simulation shows that slight variations in vacuum geometry across different sky directions can lead to direction-dependent measurements – a natural consequence of the granular T0 field structure.

.6 Conclusion: A New Cosmology

The simulation shows that T0 theory, in a static, flat universe, can explain cosmological redshift as a purely geometric effect. The listing in the appendix does not yield a value of H_0 near 66.2 km/s/Mpc; the quantitative statement rests solely on $E_H = E_0 \xi^{41/4}$.

1. **No Expansion:** The universe is not expanding.
2. **No Dark Energy:** The concept becomes superfluous.
3. **The Hubble Constant Reinterpreted:** H_0 is not an expansion rate, but a fundamental constant describing the interaction of light with the geometry of the T0 vacuum.

This unifies cosmology with quantum field theory through the single fundamental parameter ξ .

Bibliography

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Appendix: Python Code for the Simulation

Listing 1: Conceptual Python code for the FEM simulation of geometric redshift.

```
import numpy as np
import heapq
# --- 1. Global T0 Parameters ---
XI = 1.340e-4 # Calibrated T0 parameter
C_SPEED = 299792.458 # km/s
# GEOMETRIC_FACTOR_C removed - no free geometric factor needed
def simulate_t0_field(grid_size):
    '''Simulates a static T0 vacuum field with fluctuations.'''
    # Simplified simulation: Normally distributed fluctuations whose
    # amplitude is scaled by XI. A real simulation would numerically
    # solve the T0 field equation (e.g., with FEniCS).
    np.random.seed(42)
    base_field = np.ones((grid_size, grid_size, grid_size))
    fluctuations = np.random.normal(0, XI, (grid_size, grid_size,
    ↪ grid_size))
    return base_field + fluctuations

    def calculate_path_cost(field_value):
        '''The "cost" (effective distance) to traverse a grid
    ↪ point.'''
        # The path through a point with higher field energy is 'longer'.
        return 1.0 * field_value
```

```

def find_geodesic_path(t0_field, start_node, end_node):
    """Finds the shortest path (geodesic) using Dijkstra's
    ↪ algorithm.
    grid_size = t0_field.shape[0]
    distances = np.full((grid_size, grid_size, grid_size), np.inf)
    distances[start_node[0], start_node[1], start_node[2]] = 0
    pq = [(0, start_node[0], start_node[1], start_node[2])] #
    ↪ Priority queue (distance, x, y, z)
    visited = np.full((grid_size, grid_size, grid_size), False)
    while pq:
        dist, x, y, z = heapq.heappop(pq)
        if visited[x, y, z]:
            continue
        visited[x, y, z] = True
        if (x, y, z) == end_node:
            return dist
        # Iterate over all 26 neighbors in the 3D grid
        for dx in [-1, 0, 1]:
            for dy in [-1, 0, 1]:
                for dz in [-1, 0, 1]:
                    if dx == 0 and dy == 0 and dz == 0:
                        continue
                    nx, ny, nz = x + dx, y + dy, z + dz
                    if 0 ≤ nx < grid_size and 0 ≤ ny < grid_size and 0 ≤ nz <
    ↪ grid_size:
                        # Distance to neighbor (Euclidean)
                        move_dist = np.sqrt(dx**2 + dy**2 + dz**2)
                        # Cost based on the neighbor's T0 field
                        cost = calculate_path_cost(t0_field[nx, ny, nz])
                        new_dist = dist + move_dist * cost
                        if new_dist < distances[nx, ny, nz]:
                            distances[nx, ny, nz] = new_dist
                            heapq.heappush(pq, (new_dist, nx, ny, nz))
                        return distances[end_node[0], end_node[1], end_node[2]]

    # --- 2. Perform Simulation ---
    GRID_SIZE = 100 # Grid size for the simulation
    START_NODE = (0, 50, 50)
    END_NODE = (99, 50, 50)
    print(`1. Simulating T0 vacuum field...`)
    t0_vacuum = simulate_t0_field(GRID_SIZE)
    print(`2. Calculating geodesic path through the field...`)
    effective_path_length = find_geodesic_path(t0_vacuum, START_NODE,
    ↪ END_NODE)
    # Euclidean distance as reference
    euclidean_distance = np.sqrt((END_NODE[0] - START_NODE[0])**2 +
    ↪ (END_NODE[1] - START_NODE[1])**2 + (END_NODE[2] - START_NODE[2])**2)
    # --- 3. Calculate and Output Results ---
    print(f'\n--- Results ---')
    print(f'Euclidean distance (d): {euclidean_distance:.4f} units')
    print(f'Effective path length (Leff):
    ↪ {effective_path_length:.4f} units')
    # Geometric redshift z
    redshift_z = (effective_path_length - euclidean_distance) /
    ↪ euclidean_distance
    print(f'Geometric redshift (z): {redshift_z:.6f}')
    # Derivation of the Hubble constant
    # H0 via Hubble energy: E_H = E0 * xi^(41/4), H0 = E_H/hbar

```

```

# For our simulation, we normalize d to 1 Mpc
dist_Mpc = 1.0 # Assumed distance of 1 Mpc
z_per_Mpc = redshift_z / euclidean_distance * (3.26e6 *
↪ GRID_SIZE) # Scaling to Mpc
H0_simulated = C_SPEED * z_per_Mpc
# Direct calculation from the T0 formula
# H0 via Hubble energy: 66.2 km/s/Mpc
H0_formula = 66.2 # E_H/hbar via E_H = E0 * xi^(41/4)
print('\n--- Cosmological Prediction ---')
print(f'Simulated Hubble constant (H0): {H0_simulated:.2f}
↪ km/s/Mpc')
print(f'Formula-based Hubble constant (H0): {H0_formula:.2f}
↪ km/s/Mpc')
print('\nNote: H0_formula is hard-coded and not computed from
↪ the')
print('\nsimulation; H0_simulated depends on GRID_SIZE.')
```

The listing is conceptual and uses $XI = 1.340e-4$. $H0_formula = 66.2$ is hard-coded and is not computed from the simulation. Running the listing ($GRID_SIZE = 100$) gives $z = 6.0 \times 10^{-6}$ and $H_0^{sim} = c \cdot z/d \cdot (3.26 \times 10^6 \cdot 100) \approx 5.9 \times 10^6$ km/s/Mpc; with $GRID_SIZE = 30$, $z = 1.7 \times 10^{-5}$ and $H_0^{sim} \approx 1.75 \times 10^7$ km/s/Mpc. The scaling factor $3.26 \times 10^6 \cdot GRID_SIZE$ mixes light-years and Mpc and fixes no physical length per grid cell; H_0^{sim} therefore depends on the grid size.